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Stablecoins 101: Uncertain growth but the stakes are high

Stablecoins saw significant growth in 2025, drawing attention from issuers and regulators alike. Still, their long-term prospects remain uncertain. In the first article of our new series, we explore what stablecoins are, what could drive adoption, and why their future matters



Despite a sharp expansion, stablecoins now account for only about 7% of the broader crypto market

Executive summary

Stablecoins have seen significant growth over the past few years, reaching nearly US$300bn in market capitalisation at the end of 2025. This rapid expansion has come with heightened attention from both regulators and potential issuers. However, the future of the crypto asset remains uncertain as further growth depends on whether it can develop beyond the crypto-landscape and expand into the broader payment world.

In our view, part of the path to becoming a broadly adopted instrument depends on the presence of a regulatory framework and interoperability with existing payment systems. However, estimating the future growth of stablecoins is difficult, as it requires predicting their relative attractiveness compared with alternative payment systems such as central bank digital currencies and tokenised deposits in a rapidly evolving

market.

While the jury is still out on how widely stablecoins could be adopted, it is important to consider a scenario in which uptake becomes significant, as this could have serious implications for financial stability, the banking sector, emerging markets, and monetary policy.

Despite the growing attention, many questions remain about what stablecoins are, how they work, and what role they could ultimately play in the financial system. In this piece, we explain the fundamentals of stablecoins, review recent market and regulatory developments, and explore the factors that could shape their future adoption. While the market is evolving quickly, their long-term prospects remain highly uncertain. Their eventual role in payments and savings will depend not only on regulation but also on whether they can compete with existing and emerging forms of digital money. In future publications, we will examine the implications of broader stablecoin adoption in more detail.

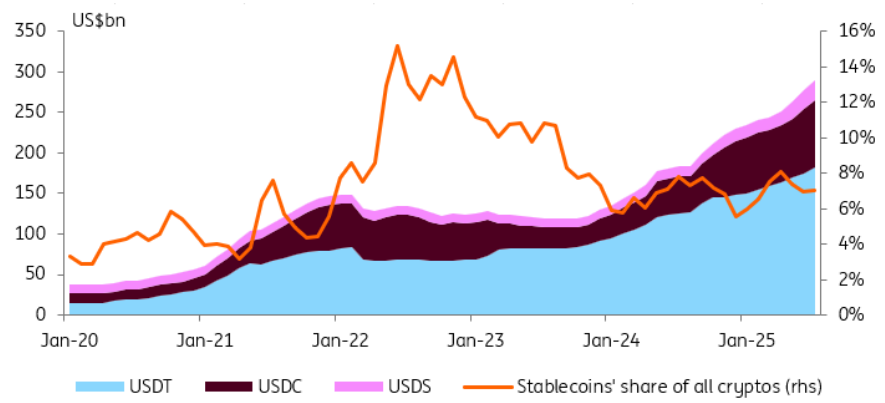
What are stablecoins?

Stablecoins are crypto assets issued by private institutions that promise a stable nominal value in a given currency, commodity or pool of assets. They are not issued or backed by a government or central authority but rather by a private institution and secured by segregated reserves. The crypto asset is issued on a Distributed Ledger Technology (DLT) (i.e. a blockchain) with three existing types of pegging mechanisms:

1. **Fiat-collateralised** stablecoins: backed 1:1 by reserves of cash or liquid assets. These are the most common and utilised type of stablecoin, currently representing over 90% of all stablecoins. We will focus on these in this piece.
2. **Crypto-collateralised** stablecoins: backed by over-collateralised crypto assets. The issuance of these stablecoins tends to be restricted by regulations such as the EU's Markets in Crypto-Assets Regulation (MiCAR).
3. **Algorithmic** stablecoins: not backed by real assets, but the peg to the chosen currency is maintained by a dynamic adjustment of the token's supply using algorithms or "smart contracts". Following the crash of the Terra project in 2022, algorithmic stablecoins now represent only a fraction of all stablecoins.

The total market capitalisation of stablecoins has surpassed US$300bn globally, 99% of which is USD-pegged tokens. While still dwarfed by bank deposits, the rapid growth of the sector over the past five years (up by $250bn) has drawn considerable attention. Despite the sharp expansion, though, stablecoins now account for only about 7% of the broader crypto market, a decline from their 2022 peak, as the market capitalisation of other cryptocurrencies has grown even faster.

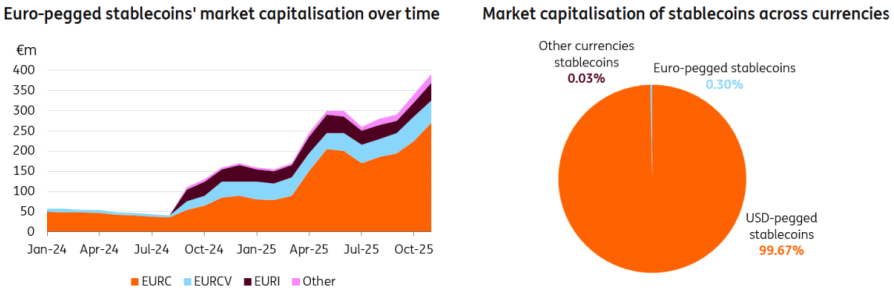
Selected stablecoins' market capitalisation over time & share of all cryptocurrencies



Source: ING Research, IMF / USDT = Tether, USDC = Circle, USDS = Sky Protocol

Euro-pegged stablecoins still only represent a fraction of all stablecoins in use, but their market capitalisation grew from €50m in early 2024 to nearly €400m at the end of 2025. Euro stablecoins remain in their infancy, accounting for only about 0.3% of the global stablecoin market despite recent progress.

Euro-pegged stablecoins remain at a nascent stage



Source: ING Research, ECB / EURC = Euro Circle, EURCV = Coinvertible, EURI = Eurite

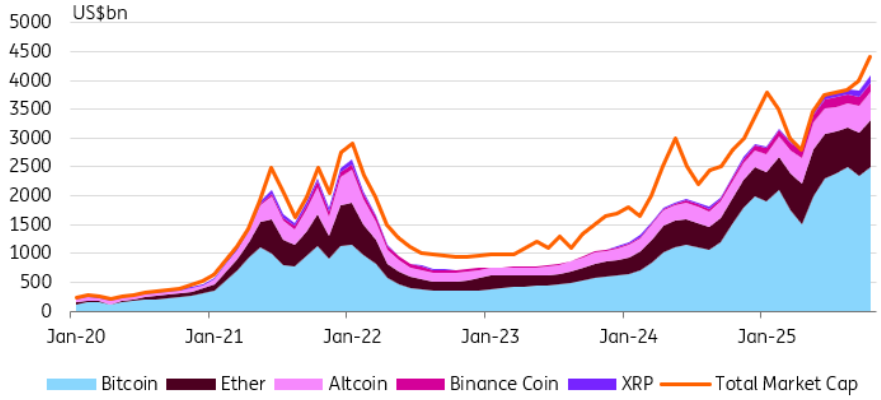
Available data shows that the use of stablecoins remains limited in the larger frame of global payments. Yet the sector's very rapid development over the past years suggests that could change. The new digital currency is forecast to grow exponentially, reaching anywhere between $900bn and $4.2tr by 2030. The wide variation in projections underscores just how hard it is to forecast the trajectory of stablecoins over the coming years. Indeed, **stablecoins' growth will depend on several factors: the regulation in place, interoperability with existing payment systems and, importantly, their use cases and relative attractiveness versus other payment systems (new or existing)**. The next section delves into other technologies that could influence the growth (or lack thereof) of stablecoins.

How do stablecoins differ from other digital & crypto currencies?

Unbacked cryptocurrencies

Stablecoins are a form of crypto asset, but they differ from other cryptocurrencies by holding segregated reserves designed to maintain a one‑to‑one value with a chosen reference currency. This is not the case for "real" cryptocurrencies that are also issued and transferred using Distributed Ledger Technology (DLT) but not backed by liquid assets. These unbacked cryptocurrencies are, therefore, much more volatile and used mainly for investment and speculative purposes. Taken together, cryptocurrencies' market capitalisation reached nearly $4500bn at the end of 2025, about three times the level in early 2024.

Selected cryptocurrencies market capitalisation over time



Source: ING Research, IMF

Beyond stablecoins and unbacked cryptocurrencies, a new wave of digital currencies is gaining traction among both prospective issuers and regulators.

Tokenised assets

Tokenised assets are digital representations of real‑world assets on a distributed ledger infrastructure. A wide range of underlying assets can be tokenised, including securities, bank deposits, and real estate.

Tokenisation is increasingly being explored for bank deposits, where the deposit itself is represented, stored, and issued on a DLT. Each token corresponds to a direct claim on a regulated commercial bank and remains on that bank's balance sheet. Unlike stablecoins, tokenised deposits do not circulate as bearer instruments but are tied to identified account holders.

The usage of tokenised deposits currently remains limited and mostly experimental. However,

tokenised deposits can modernise payment and settlement infrastructures, as well as intragroup liquidity management. They promise faster settlement (near-instant, in fact), 24/7 transactions, programmability, and lower operational frictions (reducing reliance on multiple intermediaries). Tokenised deposits also offer regulatory advantages, as they remain fully within the existing supervisory framework; the underlying assets stay on commercial banks' balance sheets, preserving the same oversight and prudential standards applied to traditional deposits.

Central Bank Digital Currencies

Central Bank Digital Currencies (CBDCs) are digital forms of money that allow users to pay each other using a direct claim on the central bank. In other words, it aims to reinvent central bank money (cash and coins) in a digital form. CBDCs are often compared and opposed to stablecoins, but the main difference is their direct claim to the central bank. They are issued and maintained by the central authority, often but not systematically using DLTs.

CBDCs can be built for retail or wholesale use (for interbank settlements and large-value transfers). Only a few CBDCs are currently in use in the world (Bahamas, Jamaica, Nigeria and China with a large-scale pilot). But over 100 countries have projects to develop their own digital currency. This includes the EU, which is currently developing its own retail CBDC (the digital euro) and aiming for a 2029 launch. Read more on this in our piece *The digital euro is making progress, European banks should pay attention*.

In addition to the digital euro, the EU is looking at developing a wholesale DLT settlement strategy. The near-term project 'Pontes' will leverage existing T2 infrastructure and provide immediate central bank money settlement. It's expected to be launched in 3Q 2026. The European Central Bank also plans a full DLT-based wholesale CBDC ecosystem under the 'Appia' initiative, with a blueprint expected in 2028.

To summarise the four digital currencies discussed, the table below highlights the key differences across their main attributes.

Currencies comparison table

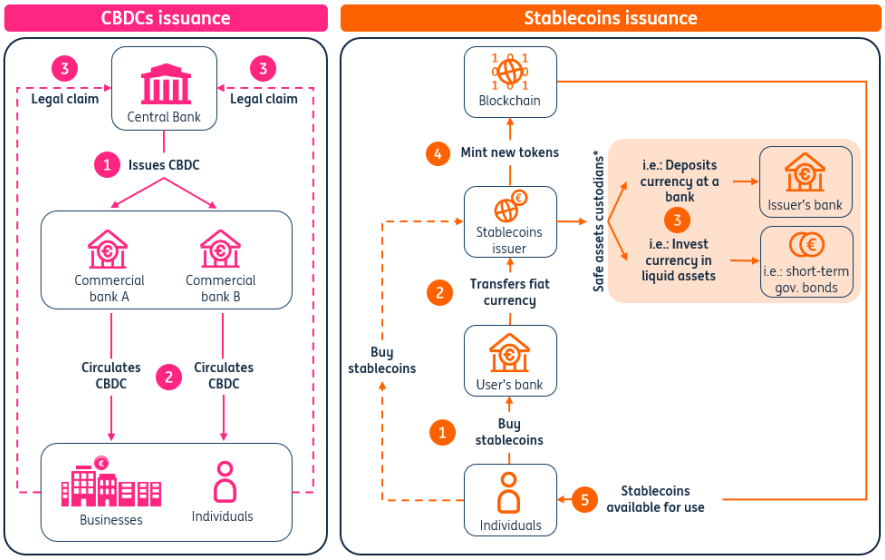
	Stablecoins	CBDCs	'Real' cryptos	Tokenised deposits	Bank deposits	Cash
Digital	✓	✓	✓	✓	✓	✗
Public	✗	✓	✗	✗	✗	✓
Blockchain use	✓	~	✓	✓	✗	✗
Programmable	✓	~	✓	✓	~	✗
Use without intermediaries	✓	~	✓	✗	✗	✓
Large price volatility	Limited by pegging mechanism	✗	✓	✗	✗	✗
Means of payment role	✓	✓	Not in the wider economy	✓	✓	✓
Unit of account role (used for invoicing)	✓	✓	Not in the wider economy	✓	✓	✓
Store of value role	Potential, especially if remuneration allowed	Not if implementation of holding limits	✗	Linked to real-world bank deposits	✓	✓
Regulation	Fragmented	National	Fragmented	✓	✓	✓

~ Possible ✗ No ✓ Yes

Source: ING Research

Both stablecoins and CBDCs aim to create a more digital and efficient means of payment, yet they are often portrayed as competing alternatives. Despite this, the two forms of digital money differ significantly. Their key differences can be illustrated through their issuance models, shown in the flowchart below.

CBDCs versus stablecoins issuance flow



Source: ING Research *examples of safe asset custodians, can vary depending on the regulation in place

The approach to stablecoins and CBDCs varies across the globe, with notable differences between the US and Europe. The transatlantic divide became increasingly apparent in the summer of 2025, when the US moved to support dollar-backed stablecoins while prohibiting the issuance of a CBDC. Europe has taken a different approach, arguing that a CBDC, the digital

euro, would enhance regulatory oversight through issuance and supervision by the European Central Bank.

Given the starkly different political approaches across jurisdictions, stablecoins are likely to evolve as primarily domestic or regional instruments, a dynamic that could shape and, potentially, constrain their overall growth potential.

For stablecoins to become systemically important, their use needs to extend beyond the crypto ecosystem into the broader, global, payments world. However, political positions are already signalling resistance to a global (dollar-pegged) stablecoin, with policymakers instead encouraging the development of multiple domestic stablecoins denominated in local currencies.

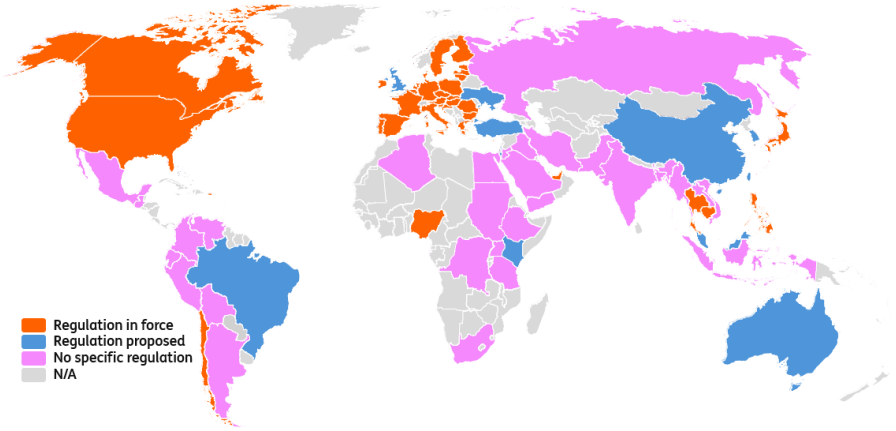
The absence of regulatory harmonisation reinforces this trend. Stablecoin issuers must adapt to each jurisdiction's rules, limiting cross-border scalability and undermining the emergence of a single dominant global stablecoin. The next section outlines the regulatory divergences across the US, EU, and UK.

Large regulatory differences and crucial remuneration uncertainty

Currently, 12 countries have stablecoin regulations in force, and another 10 have proposed texts that are not yet approved. The strongest stance against the issuance of stablecoins comes from China, where they're banned. This partly stems from the government's push for its CBDC; stablecoins are therefore viewed as direct competition.

The main laws are in place in the trading hubs, while other markets still lack specific stablecoin and crypto asset regulations. Despite recent developments at the national or regional level, there's an absence of international harmonisation and coordination on the topic.

Distribution of current stablecoin regulations worldwide



Source: ING Research, Visual capitalist

Because of the lack of international harmonisation on stablecoin oversight, existing regulatory frameworks diverge in several ways. The most important difference concerns the management of the safe assets. Indeed, issuers face various types and levels of restrictions for the segregated reserves. This could influence stablecoins' potential impact on the financial system.

Under US regulation (GENIUS Act), issuers must hold at least $1 of permitted reserves for every $1 of stablecoins issued. Permitted reserves include (but are not exclusively) cash, deposits held at commercial banks, short-dated treasury bills and other similar government-issued assets approved by regulators. The absence of specific limits or thresholds on each of these options gives USD-stablecoin issuers a relatively large degree of freedom to allocate their reserves.

This isn't replicated in the European legislation. MiCAR sets stricter requirements for E-Money institute issuers. These institutions (if systemic) are required to hold at least 60% of the safe assets as commercial banks' deposits (30% if non-systemic issuers). They're allowed to hold 40% of their reserves in liquid government bonds (70% if non-systemic issuers).

While the UK is still drafting its final stablecoin regulatory framework, the latest proposal includes restrictions on reserve investments. For systemic issuers, the Bank of England proposes prohibiting the use of commercial bank deposits and requiring that at least 30% of backing assets be held as non‑remunerated central bank deposits. The remaining 70% could be invested in short‑term government debt. The central bank argues that allowing commercial bank deposits as backing could introduce financial, operational, and contagion risks that could amplify a stress across the sector. Additionally, the UK is the first country to propose a temporary issuance guardrail for systemic issuers, limiting the amount of stablecoins issued to £40bn per issuer for an unspecified temporary period.

While myriad other divergences exist, we also note one convergence between the US, EU and UK regulatory frameworks: the ban on remuneration distribution. All three regimes prohibit stablecoin issuers from paying interest to holders. In the US, where broader crypto market legislation is still under negotiation, this restriction is heavily debated and could ultimately be revised.

Interest payments by stablecoin issuers remain prohibited in most jurisdictions. This restriction is central to the regulatory architecture, as it directly shapes stablecoins' appeal as a store of value and influences both adoption dynamics and its potential footprint in the broader financial system.

The table below summarises the main differences between the three regulatory frameworks. Read more on the various regulatory frameworks in the footnotes.

Summary of the US, EU and UK stablecoins regulatory frameworks

			US[1] Genius Act	EU MiCAR		UK[2] Regulation	
				E-money institute	Credit institution	Non-systemic issuers	Systemic issuers
1.	**Access to central bank**, lender of last resort		**Case-by-case** Fed decision	**Forbidden**	**No restrictions**		Bank of England **considering** backstop facility
2.	**Asset investment policy**	**Central Bank deposit**	**Case-by-case** Fed decision	**Forbidden**	**Allowed**	**Allowed**	**Required** i) ≥30% of assets; ii) unremunerated
		Commercial bank deposit	**Allowed** upper limit to be specified	**Required** ≥60% of assets (≥30% if non-systemic)	**Allowed**	**Allowed**	**Forbidden**
		Government bonds	**Allowed** ≤3m maturity	**Allowed** <40% of assets (<70% if non-systemic)	**Allowed**	**Allowed**	**Allowed** <70% of assets
3.	**Stablecoins remuneration**		**Forbidden** for issuer only	**Forbidden** for issuer and crypto-asset service providers (CASP)	**Forbidden** for issuer and CASP	**Forbidden** for issuer	**Forbidden** for issuer
4.	**Issuance guardrail**		None	None	None	N/A	Temporary £40bn

Source: ING Research, Fed, European Commission, BoE

1 US has three license levels: for a) bank and b) non-banks at federal level, and c) one at state level for smaller institutions. 2 Proposed UK-regime based on June 2026 proposal in Bank of England consultation

...driving the key uncertainty on stablecoins' uptake

Stablecoins' rapid growth over the past few years, in association with the lack of regulation, has raised concern for central banks across the world. Depending on future growth and use cases, stablecoins could have a significant impact on financial stability. For this to materialise, stablecoin use and adoption would have to go beyond the niche crypto-ecosystem and extend to the payment landscape.

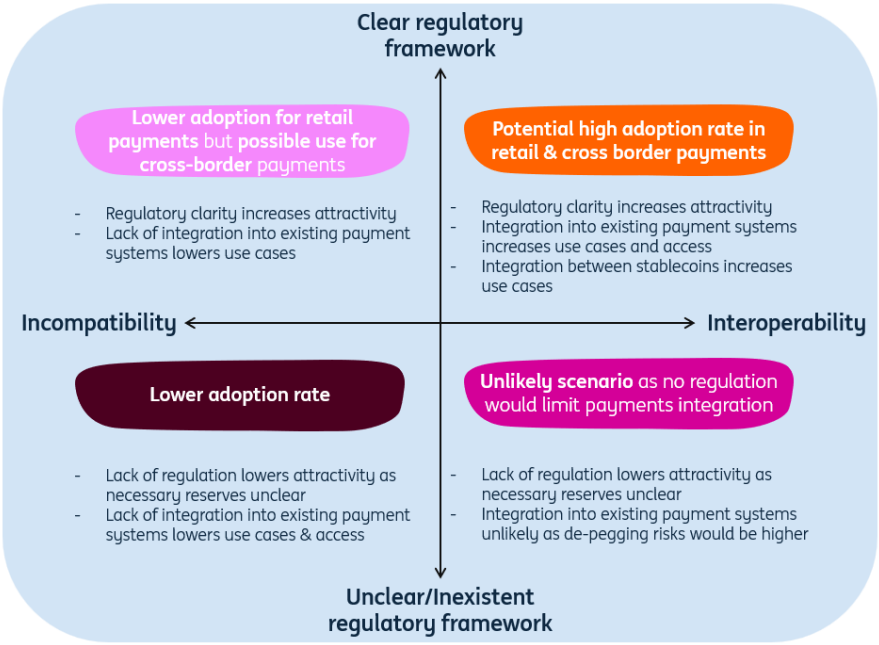
While stablecoins have grown significantly over the years, they are not currently "broadly

adopted". Currently, there's no set threshold determining what would constitute this broad adoption. Furthermore, the development of the crypto asset over the next few years remains unclear. In our view, the adoption uptake would depend on its use for two things:

- Payments
- As a store of value

Starting with the use of stablecoins in payments, there are three main variables. The first two factors are the presence of a regulatory framework and the degree of interoperability between stablecoins and existing payment systems. Mapping these variables produces a quadrant that illustrates four potential development paths for stablecoins.

Potential development of stablecoins in retail payments



Source: ING Research

A scenario with both a clear regulatory framework and full integration of stablecoins into existing payment systems would provide fertile ground for meaningful adoption in payments. However, the extent of such uptake depends on the third variable: the attractiveness of other payment systems (new and existing ones).

The existence and development of alternatives such as tokenised deposits and central bank digital currencies might limit the relative attractiveness of stablecoins. Even though payment systems in Europe remain relatively cheap and fast, that experience is far from universal internationally. For regions where payments are costly and slow, introducing new technologies such as tokenisation into existing systems could allow them to rapidly close the gap with the

advantages stablecoins offer, and potentially emerge as direct competitors to the crypto asset.

There is also a potential political push toward adopting central bank digital currencies, a dynamic relevant not only for jurisdictions with high payment costs but for the EU as well. The digital euro has become a central topic in the 'strategic payment autonomy' discussion and could directly compete with stablecoins for day-to-day payment use.

When it comes to the use of stablecoins as a store of value, a significant uptake would depend on two points:

- Whether direct remuneration by stablecoin issuers is allowed. The current ban on direct remuneration in major jurisdictions does little to support the use of stablecoins as deposit-like instruments, except in countries where real interest rates are negative. However, we can't exclude regulatory changes in coming years, especially as the topic is currently under discussion in the US with the upcoming Clarity Act. Read more on this in our regulatory footnotes below.
- The interest rate level paid on alternative deposit accounts (such as traditional bank deposits), as stablecoins could become more of a competitor to traditional deposit accounts in an environment where interest rates are zero or close to zero (which has been the case in the EU in recent years and is still the case in the US).

Only if, and with the right combination of these factors, could we foresee the adoption of stablecoins growing significantly to become broadly adopted. Yet, at present, it remains difficult to estimate the direction the crypto asset will follow in the years ahead.

Potential implications of stablecoins

Although stablecoins are not yet widely adopted and their future trajectory remains hard to pin down, our forthcoming articles will explore a scenario in which they scale enough to become a meaningful payment system. We see this as a necessary exercise: broad stablecoin adoption could carry significant and far-reaching implications for the financial system – spanning the banking sector, emerging market stability, safe asset demand, monetary policy transmission, and even geopolitical and cyber-risk dynamics.

Indeed, research has found that upon broad adoption, stablecoins could drive significant changes in banks' funding. Depending on the required reserves, this could translate into either a net drop in retail deposits or a switch from retail into wholesale deposits (as MiCAR requires stablecoin issuers to hold part of the reserves in EU commercial banks). Overall, it could make banks' funding structure more volatile as wholesale deposits are known to be less steady funding sources than retail ones (which are rarely moved across institutions). Also, wholesale deposits are costlier to hold for banks as the regulation imposes higher capital requirements, reflecting their higher volatility and general risk level.

Stablecoins could also have implications in emerging markets through currency substitution. It could amplify depreciation pressures under stress episodes by lowering friction around moving local currency into USD stablecoins. Countries with weak monetary credibility (i.e. high inflation, low interest rates) make stablecoins an attractive store of value and payment means, even outside stress episodes. The outflow to stablecoins could further undermine monetary policy transmission.

USD stablecoins also have the potential to boost demand for short-term US treasuries as issuers look for safe asset reserves. In principle, quick changes in transaction-driven demand could then amplify volatility in rates under a stress scenario. The proliferation of stablecoins (regardless of the currency) may also shift the composition of the overall monetary base with an asset reallocation from bank deposits into treasury/government bonds. This means potentially weaker monetary policy transmission through both the credit and interest rate channels.

While all these points remain theoretical implications of stablecoins, regulators are increasingly concerned and estimates on those impacts are developing. In future reports, we aim to contribute to the growing body of literature on this subject by diving deeper into each of these potential implications, seriously considering a scenario where stablecoins become a broadly adopted payment system.

Stablecoins are growing but the jury is still out on how big they'll get

Over the last few years, the market capitalisation of stablecoins has grown significantly, attracting the attention of both potential issuers and regulators across the globe. However, when it comes to the development of the crypto asset, it remains difficult to estimate an exact path. In our view, the growth of stablecoins in the coming years could be limited or strong depending on their uptake in both payments and as a store of value. Part of this growth to become a “broadly adopted” instrument depends on the existence of a regulatory framework and the interoperability with existing payment systems. The difficulty in estimating stablecoin growth comes from predicting the relative attractiveness versus alternative payment systems (new or old) as the sector quickly evolves.

It's important to consider a scenario where the use of stablecoins increases significantly, as this could have serious implications for financial stability, the banking sector, and emerging markets, as well as monetary policy. Therefore, in our upcoming series of articles, we will dive into potential impacts in more depth, starting with the implications of “broadly adopted” stablecoins for financial institutions.

Regulatory footnotes

The United States' GENIUS Act

Adopted in July 2025, the Guiding and Establishing National Innovation for US Stablecoins Act (GENIUS Act) establishes a regime to regulate US payment stablecoins. Despite the enforcement starting in January 2027, the mere adoption of the GENIUS Act had an immediate effect on USD-denominated stablecoins, with net stablecoin creation growing from about $10bn in 2Q25 (before the regulation) to over $45bn in 3Q25, a 324% increase in just a couple of months.

The regulation permits stablecoins to be issued by banks, credit unions and certain non-bank entities (although non-bank issuers are limited to financial firms unless the Stablecoin Certification Review Committee (SCRC) unanimously determines that they do not pose a risk to the banking or financial system).

Issuers face tailored capital, liquidity, and risk management rules but are not subject to the regulatory capital standards for "traditional" banks. Banks issuing stablecoins are regulated by the Federal Reserve, while non-banks fall under the Office of the Comptroller of the Currency (OCC) oversight.

Aside from permitted issuers, the GENIUS Act also clarifies stablecoin requirements. I**ssuers must hold at least $1 of permitted reserves for every $1 of stablecoins issued**.
Permitted reserves include (but are not limited to) USD cash, deposits held at commercial banks, short-dated treasury bills and other similar government-issued assets approved by regulators.

Additionally, issuers of the digital currency must comply with several transparency and reporting requirements, including regular reporting on the reserve composition, and must run audits by public accounting firms. They are required to disclose the redemption procedures and comply with the US Bank Secrecy Act as well as tailored Anti-Money Laundering and Counter-Terrorism Financing (AML/CTF) rules.

The GENIUS Act also currently prohibits issuers from paying interest to stablecoin holders. However, the topic is open to discussion in the US as the proposed CLARITY Act (which aims to clarify the broader crypto asset regulatory landscape) could include the possibility for stablecoin issuers to distribute customer rewards.

The EU's Markets in Crypto-Assets Regulation (MiCAR)

MiCAR was adopted in 2023 and covers a wide range of crypto assets. The stablecoin rules gradually came into force through the end of 2024. They apply to both issuers and entities offering trading, custody, exchange and advisory on crypto assets. **MiCAR classifies crypto assets in three categories**:

- **Asset-Referenced Tokens** (ARTs): stablecoins backed by a basket of assets such as fiat currencies or commodities
- **E-Money Tokens** (EMTs): stablecoins pegged to a single fiat currency
- **Other crypto assets:** including decentralised cryptocurrencies and other tokens (not falling into the first two categories)

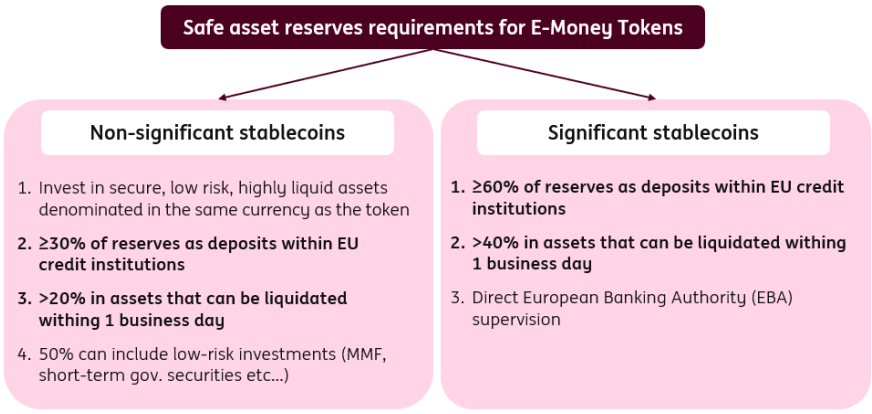
The regulation clarifies which entities are allowed to issue crypto assets in the Union, namely credit institutions and Authorised Electronic Money Institutions (EMIs). In addition, the EU differentiates cryptocurrencies by their size, including specific requirements for the largest assets**.**

Stablecoins are considered significant when (but not only):

- The **number of holders** is larger than **10m**
- The **value of the token** issued (market capitalisation or size of the reserve of assets) is higher than **€5bn**
- The **average number and transaction value per day** are higher than **2.5m and €0.5bn,** respectively

Under MiCAR, stablecoin issuers are required to have a legal entity established in the EU. The regulation sets out a list of requirements for stablecoins issued in the EU, starting with the prohibition on the distribution of interest on the tokens. It also establishes requirements for stablecoin reserves. For E□Money Tokens (EMTs) specifically, regulatory requirements differ depending on whether the issuer is classified as significant or not. The graph below summarises the safe assets requirements depending on the size of the stablecoin issuer.

MiCAR safe asset requirements per stablecoin issuer type



Source: ING Research, MiCA Regulation

Additionally, all issuers of stablecoins in the EU are subject to transparency and reporting requirements, including the publication of whitepapers on the token's functionality, risk and technology. Issuers must run quarterly stress testing and comply with the Union's AML/CTF

rules.

The UK's upcoming regulation

In June 2026, the Bank of England published a policy statement and draft rules for systemic stablecoin issuers. The BoE's approach to stablecoin regulation varies from existing frameworks as it plans to ban systemic issuers from holding part of their reserves with commercial banks.

The central bank argues that this decision is warranted by the financial, operational, and contagion risks that could arise between stablecoins and the broader financial system during periods of stress. This stance contrasts with the EU stablecoin regulation that requires issuers to hold part of their reserves as commercial bank deposits.

Issuers would therefore be required to hold at least 30% of the reserves in unremunerated BoE deposits and the remaining 70% in short-term UK government debt securities with a residual maturity of up to six months.

The draft rule sets aside the individual holding limit requirement announced previously and instead proposes a temporary issuance guardrail to mitigate risks to credit provision. Each systemic stablecoin issuer will be subject to an initial maximum issuance of £40bn. This limit would be reviewed, loosened and ultimately removed; the BoE doesn't include a timeline for such phasing out. If enforced as such, the UK would be the first country to officially regulate the amount of stablecoins issued, even on a temporary basis.

The proposal plans to require systemic stablecoin issuers to conduct an overall risk assessment to identify, monitor and mitigate risks. Additionally, it sets minimum capital requirements composed of six months of the issuer's relevant operating expenses or the cost of executing its recovery plan. It also requires notifying the central bank when its capital falls below 110% of the minimum requirements.

The Bank of England plans to install a statutory trust mechanism comprising two trusts: one to protect coinholders' interests and the other to cover the costs of returning value to them. Stablecoin issuers will thus be required to segregate the assets used for reserves and appoint third-party custodians to hold these. The proposal also includes a prohibition on the payment of interest and income to coinholders.

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